A Latent Oscillator Measurement Model for Simulating Emotion Dynamics in Video

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Abstract

Automated facial-expression scoring can turn video frames into dense time series of visible affective expression, but the resulting score channels are model-derived measurements whose latent temporal structure is unknown in empirical data. We introduce the Latent Oscillator Measurement Model (LOMM), a generative framework for simulation-based evaluation of dynamic dimensional recovery in facial-expression-recognition-like (FER-like) video score series. LOMM combines second-order latent oscillator dynamics with an explicit measurement layer, allowing researchers to simulate observed score panels under known latent dimensionality, loading strength, measurement error, feedback regime, and activity pattern. We first calibrated the generator against FER-like score panels from the MAFW dataset using empirical realism targets for dispersion, local movement, temporal persistence, directional-regime complexity, spectral complexity, and dimensional spread. The calibrated generator reproduced several temporal and dimensional signatures, although channel-level dispersion remained larger than in the empirical panels. We then used LOMM in a known-truth simulation study comparing Dynamic Exploratory Graph Analysis (DynEGA), GraphicalVAR, and bounded GIMME. DynEGA showed the strongest dimensional hit rate and completed the full design grid. GraphicalVAR recovered dimensionality in many conditions but was slower and more sensitive to the observation layer, whereas GIMME was useful mainly as a bounded feasibility comparator. LOMM therefore provides a controlled way to evaluate dynamic measurement and recovery methods before applying them to empirical video data.

Introduction

Recent advancements in deep learning and computer vision have made it increasingly feasible to transform video frames into time series of emotional expression scores (S. Li & Deng, 2022; Meng et al., 2017). For behavioral-science applications, these tools create a new kind of intensive longitudinal record: high-frequency, model-derived measurements of visible affective expression. These

records differ substantially from self-report time series collected through ecological momentary assessment (EMA; Tong et al., 2005) or experience sampling methods (ESM; Hoemann et al., 2020). Facial-expression recognition (FER) scores are dense outputs of measurement systems applied to video frames, making them promising for studying the temporal organization of emotional expression at scale. Their use also raises a methodological problem: dynamic models need to separate latent expressive processes from the observed score series used to measure them.

The substantive motivation comes from video-rich behavioral settings in which visible affect is part of the behavior being studied. Facial expressions are central to human communication (Barrett et al., 2019; Mehu & Scherer, 2015; Stewart et al., 2009), but many behavioral-science questions concern how these expressions unfold over time rather than how a single frame should be labeled. In psychotherapy tasks, autism assessments, collaborative work, public communication, and social-media videos, the relevant questions are dynamic: whether expressions return quickly after perturbation, whether affective displays settle into stable or volatile regimes, and whether many observed emotion labels reflect fewer latent expressive dimensions (Hollenstein, 2007; Houben et al., 2015; Kuppens & Verduyn, 2017).

Automated facial-analysis systems now make this kind of work feasible at scale. Datasets such as FER2013 (Goodfellow et al., 2013) supported deep learning approaches to facial-expression recognition, especially Convolutional Neural Networks (Arriaga et al., 2017; CNNs; Ezerceli & Eskil, 2022). Most early systems inherited their emotion categories from the training data and focused on fixed classification tasks, commonly returning probabilities for seven categories: anger, disgust, fear, happiness, sadness, surprise, and neutral facial expression (Wang et al., 2022). More recently, transformer-based and CLIP-like models have enabled zero-shot classification with user-specified emotion labels (Foteinopoulou & Patras, 2023; H. Li et al., 2023; Tomašević et al., 2026), making it possible to represent each video frame as a vector of emotion-label scores. Applied studies are already using such automated scoring in clinical, collaborative, and social-media settings (Halamová et al., 2023; Holiday et al., 2023; Q. Li et al., 2024; Manelis-Baram et al., 2025).

This technical progress also creates a validation problem. FER-like score series are model-derived, multivariate, and error-prone measurements of visible behavior. Their interpretation depends on whether the observed score channels are treated as emotion variables in their own right, as indicators of social interaction, or as noisy indicators of lower-dimensional latent affective processes (McKeown & Allison, 2024). For dynamic modeling, this distinction has practical consequences: measurement error can change the structure recovered by dynamic-network methods, making it important to separate latent temporal organization from the fallible score series used to observe it (Kankaanpää et al., 2026).

The aim of this paper is to introduce the Latent Oscillator Measurement Model

(LOMM), a generative framework that combines latent second-order oscillator dynamics with a measurement model for observed FER score series (Boker, 2015; Boker & Nesselroade, 2002; Ollero et al., 2023). LOMM models video-derived emotion scores as fallible indicators generated from latent temporal processes. By generating observed FER-like score series from known latent dimensions and trajectories, LOMM supports a validation sequence: simulate score panels under controlled latent-dimensionality, loading, measurement-error, and feedback-regime conditions; compare selected simulated panels with empirical video-derived scores from MAFW, a large-scale, multi-modal, compound affective database for dynamic facial-expression recognition in the wild, as a realism check (Liu et al., 2022); and evaluate whether dynamic modeling methods recover the intended latent organization. In this sequence, the realism check is part of simulation design because it asks whether the known-truth generator is close enough to empirical FER-like data for method comparisons to be meaningful.

The paper makes three contributions and is organized accordingly. First, it specifies LOMM as an interpretable generative model for FER-like video emotion time series, combining second-order latent affective dynamics with an explicit measurement layer for observed emotion-label scores. Second, it evaluates the empirical realism of the LOMM generator by testing whether simulated panels reproduce selected statistical signatures of video-derived FER-like data. Third, it uses LOMM as a known-truth simulation study for dynamic dimensional recovery, comparing DynEGA with GraphicalVAR and GIMME under controlled measurement and dynamical conditions. We first define the LOMM data-generating model and its measurement component, then describe the empirical FER-like score source and realism checks, present the simulation study, and close by discussing when video-derived emotion traces can support behavioral-science claims about latent affective dynamics.

Figure 1 summarizes the full workflow early in the manuscript. The empirical side of the pipeline defines realism targets for FER-like video score series (Panels A–C); scenario selection then translates those targets into LOMM parameters (Panel D); and the simulation study evaluates dimensional recovery against known latent structure (Panels E–H).

Expressive Affective Dynamics as an Oscillator Measurement Model

Affective-dynamics research treats emotion as a time-varying process rather than as a static score. Across common approaches, the relevant features include average intensity, variability, instability, inertia, transitions between states, and return after perturbation (Hollenstein, 2007; Houben et al., 2015; Kuppens & Verduyn, 2017). For video-derived expressive behavior, the same logic applies to visible affect. A short clip can contain low expressivity, brief expressive

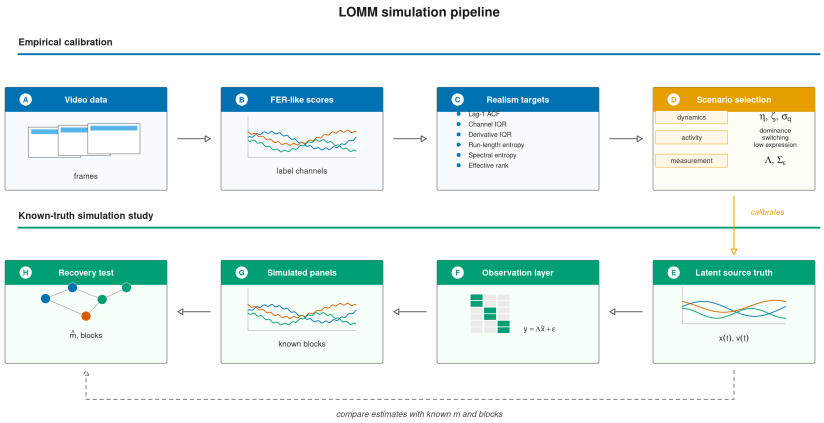


Figure 1: Visual overview of the LOMM simulation pipeline. Panels A–C show the empirical calibration step and realism targets for FER-like video score series. Panel D shows scenario selection through dynamics, activity, and measurement parameters. Panels E–H show the known-truth simulation, read from right to left: latent source-truth trajectories are passed through the observation layer to generate simulated score panels, and recovery tests compare estimated dimensions and blocks with the known latent structure.

episodes, gradual recovery, persistent activation, or alternation between expressive regimes. Modeling expressive affect therefore requires a representation that can describe both the level of a latent expressive process and its tendency to persist, change direction, or return toward equilibrium.

An oscillator model provides a compact way to represent these features once latent variables are understood as theory-guided expressive dimensions distinct from the observed emotion labels themselves. Affective structure can be specified in several defensible ways: core-affect and circumplex models organize affect around valence and arousal; PAD models add dominance or control; and Plutchik-style accounts arrange emotion families around opponent tendencies such as joy–sadness, trust–disgust, fear–anger, and anticipation–surprise (Plutchik, 2001; Russell, 1980, 2003; Russell & Mehrabian, 1977). The same logic has a long history in work on facial expression, where visible expressions are often interpreted through dimensions such as pleasantness, activation, attention, or rejection rather than only through mutually exclusive categories (Schlosberg, 1954). For FER-like video data, the implication is measurement-theoretic: scores for labels such as happiness, amusement, anger, fear, disgust, sadness, surprise, or calmness can be treated as fallible indicators of latent expressive tendencies, with the grouping chosen by the substantive theory and target setting. LOMM adapts the oscillator tradition to this problem by generating latent expressive trajectories first and then generating observed emotion-label score series from an explicit measurement layer. The model therefore has

two integrated parts: a latent oscillator process for expressive dynamics and a measurement model adapted from the direct autoregressive factor score model (H. Golino et al., 2022; Nesselroade et al., 2013).

Following Ollero et al. (2023), LOMM treats each latent expressive dimension as a continuous-time second-order state process. Let $i = 1, \ldots, V$ index videos, t index time, and $f = 1, \ldots, m$ index the latent expressive dimensions selected for a simulation. For video i, $x_{if}(t)$ is the latent level of dimension f, and $v_{if}(t) = \dot{x}_{if}(t)$ is its instantaneous rate of change. The implemented latent process is

$$\frac{\mathrm{d}}{\mathrm{d}t}\begin{bmatrix} x_{if}(t) \\ v_{if}(t) \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 1 \\ \eta_f & \zeta_f \end{bmatrix}\begin{bmatrix} x_{if}(t) \\ v_{if}(t) \end{bmatrix} + \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ q_{if}(t) \end{bmatrix}, \qquad q_{if}(t) \sim \mathcal{N}(0, \sigma_{qf}^2), \tag{1}$$

or equivalently, $\ddot{x}_{if}(t) = \eta_f x_{if}(t) + \zeta_f \dot{x}_{if}(t) + q_{if}(t)$. This is an uncoupled multivariate system: η_f, ζ_f, and σ_{qf} may vary by factor, but the model used here does not include off-diagonal dynamic effects in which one latent expressive dimension directly changes the acceleration of another. We therefore interpret η_f as position feedback and ζ_f as velocity feedback. Under this sign convention, negative η_f pulls a displaced latent trajectory back toward its equilibrium level; stronger negative values imply stronger restoring acceleration. Negative ζ_f attenuates velocity over time, $\zeta_f = 0$ removes velocity feedback, and positive ζ_f can sustain or amplify ongoing change over the finite interval being simulated. The innovation $q_{if}(t)$ is a factor-specific shock process that perturbs the latent trajectory. In the simulations reported here, the continuous-time system is advanced with the exact linear transition matrix and initialized with $x_{if}(1) = 0.25$ and $v_{if}(1) = 2$.

For simulation-based evaluation, LOMM defines scenario conditions at two levels. First, the factor-specific parameters η_f, ζ_f, and σ_{qf} set the dynamical regime: negative velocity feedback produces damped return, zero velocity feedback removes damping, and positive velocity feedback can sustain or amplify change over the finite simulated interval. Second, time-varying activity weights determine which latent dimension dominates the generated score series. In single-regime scenarios, one dimension has higher activity across the full sequence; in switching scenarios, the active dimension changes after sampled dwell intervals; and in low-expression scenarios, all dimensions remain close to background activity. Formally, the trajectory passed to the measurement model is $\tilde{x}_{if}(t) = a_{if}(t)x_{if}(t)$, where $a_{if}(t)$ is a scenario-defined activity weight. This design lets the simulation vary damping, dominance, switching, and volatility while keeping the source-of-truth latent dimensionality and measurement blocks known.

The observable FER-like score vector is generated from the scenario-scaled latent trajectories through a block measurement model. For video i, if each latent dimension has k observed indicators, then $p = mk$ and

$$\mathbf{y}_{it} = {}_{i}\tilde{\mathbf{x}}_{it} + \varepsilon_{it}, \qquad \varepsilon_{it} \sim \mathcal{N}(\mathbf{0}, {}_{i}). \tag{2}$$

Each observed score loads on exactly one latent dimension: for indicator j in block B_f, $(\Lambda_i)_{jf} = \lambda + u_{ij}$ with $u_{ij} \sim \text{Unif}(-0.15, 0.15)$, and all off-block loadings are zero. The measurement-error covariance matrix is diagonal, ${}_{i} = \text{diag}(\sigma^2_{\varepsilon,i1}, \ldots, \sigma^2_{\varepsilon,ip})$, with $\sigma^2_{\varepsilon,ij} = s^2_{\varepsilon} + r_{ij}$ and $r_{ij} \sim \text{Unif}(-0.01, 0.01)$. In the simulation grid, s_{ε} is reported as the measurement-error standard deviation, and s^2_{ε} enters the diagonal covariance matrix. Thus LOMM simulates measured expressive factors and their observed indicator blocks; neutrality is not part of the source-truth structure in the simulation.

As a concrete three-factor example, a Plutchik-informed specification could set $m = 3$ for affiliative/approach expression, threat/defensive expression, and orienting/novelty expression (Plutchik, 2001). FER-like indicators related to joy, trust, amusement, or smiling would form one block; indicators related to anger, fear, or disgust would form a second block; and surprise- or anticipation-related indicators would form a third. The example is not a required taxonomy. It illustrates the measurement logic of LOMM: the researcher states a theory-guided latent organization, the simulator generates known latent trajectories under that organization, and the observed emotion-label scores are noisy indicators whose loading strength and measurement error are substantive simulation conditions (Kankaanpää et al., 2026).

The same three-factor example is shown in Figure 2 to make the role of the latent shock term visible.

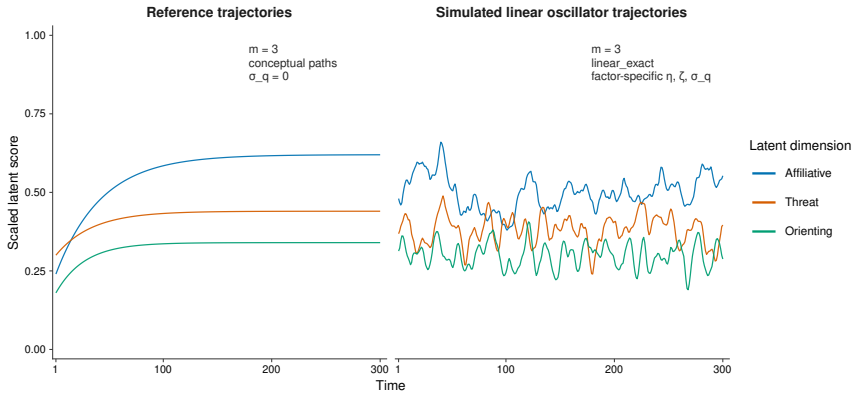


Figure 2: Three-factor LOMM example for Plutchik-informed latent expressive dimensions. The left panel shows smooth reference trajectories without dynamic shocks; the right panel shows trajectories generated by the implemented linear oscillator process with factor-specific position feedback, velocity feedback, and innovation variance.

Figure 2 highlights the role of the innovation variance, σ_q^2, in LOMM. The reference panel shows the conceptual latent ordering without dynamic shocks: affiliative expression rises quickly and settles above the threat and orienting trajectories. The simulated oscillator panel keeps this same structure, but nonzero factor-specific σ_q perturbs each latent process at each time point, producing local peaks, reversals, and irregular fluctuations around the underlying trajectory. After approximately time point 100, affiliative expression (blue) remains the dominant latent tendency, while threat (orange) fluctuates at a moderate level and orienting (green) stays lower with shorter local excursions. Thus, σ_q is the mechanism that turns a smooth conceptual model into latent score series that better resemble the uneven temporal structure of FER-like video data, without adding a neutrality trajectory or cross-factor coupling.

Method

The analyses follow the workflow in Figure 1. We first use empirical video scores to define realism targets for FER-like score series (Panels A–C). We then translate those targets into LOMM scenario conditions (Panel D) and evaluate dimensional-recovery methods on simulated panels for which the latent dimensional structure and measurement blocks are known (Panels E–H).

Empirical Calibration and Realism Targets

Figure 3 shows the empirical scoring target that motivates the simulation study. The figure uses one clip from MAFW, a dataset designed for dynamic facial expression recognition in the wild (Liu et al., 2022), whereas the realism check uses a 100-clip calibration sample scored with the same zero-shot FER-like procedure. Each sampled frame is represented by a fixed set of prompt-defined score channels: anger, disgust, fear, happiness, neutral, sadness, surprise, contempt, anxiety, helplessness, and disappointment. Within each clip, short missing runs are interpolated, frames with complete usable scores are retained, and clipped score vectors are renormalized so that frame-level channels can be compared as probability-like outputs. These prompt-specific classifier outputs provide empirical targets for the LOMM observation layer through their temporal persistence, variability, and co-fluctuation.

The selected frames and score outputs from the same MAFW clip illustrate the measurement problem (Panels A and B): different frames receive different scores across labels such as helplessness, fear, disgust, sadness, anxiety, and disappointment. The frame-level trajectories show that the highest mean channels change in bursts rather than as smooth curves (Panel C). The single-video DynEGA network applies Dynamic Exploratory Graph Analysis to the same clip's non-neutral score trajectories (Panel D). In this illustration, the method returns three communities among ten score channels, motivating the dimensional-recovery problem later studied under known truth.

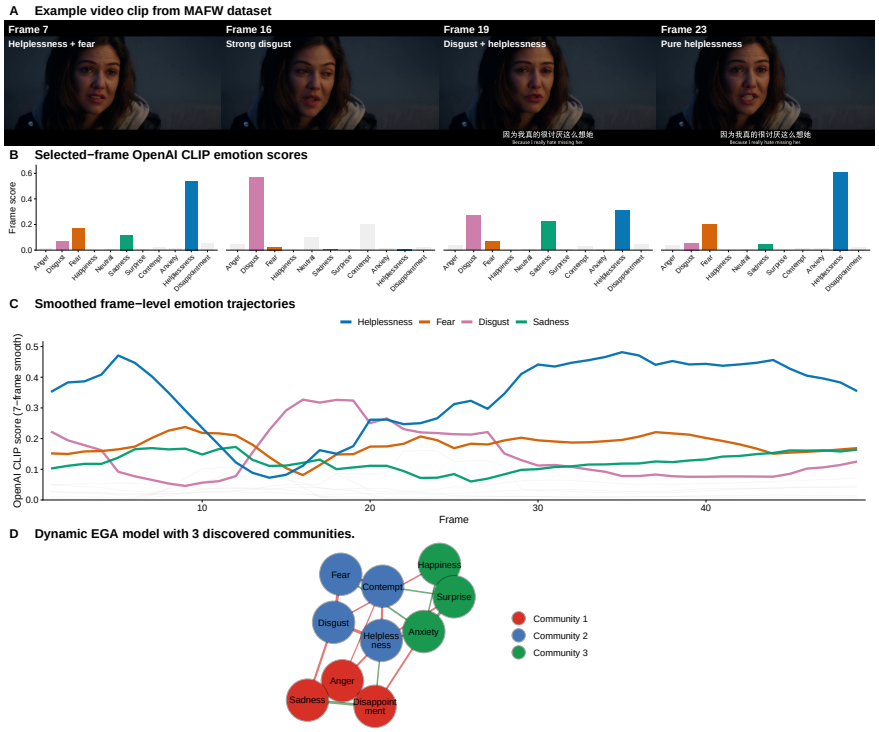


Figure 3: Single-video empirical illustration from the MAFW dataset. Panel A shows selected frames from one MAFW clip; Panel B shows zero-shot FER-like scores for the selected frames; Panel C shows smoothed frame-level trajectories for the highest mean score channels; Panel D shows a Dynamic EGA network estimated from the same clip's non-neutral score trajectories.

For the empirical realism check, empirical and simulated panels are summarized at two levels. Observable-channel metrics are computed directly from the FER-like score series within each clip. Community-score metrics are computed after applying pooled DynEGA to the score panel and extracting score summaries for the recovered communities. This distinction matters because a simulated panel can approximate the observable score channels while still producing a different lower-dimensional geometry, or conversely match the coarse latent organization while retaining imperfect channel-level amplitude behavior.

The primary realism targets include channel-level IQR, derivative IQR, temporal complexity, and dimensional spread. Channel IQR indexes score dispersion; derivative IQR indexes the typical scale of local frame-to-frame movement; lag-1 autocorrelation indexes local persistence; run-length entropy indexes directional-regime complexity; spectral entropy indexes spectral complexity; and effective rank indexes multivariate dimensional spread. For each metric, empirical and simulated distributions are compared using a scaled median difference and a scaled one-dimensional Wasserstein distance, with the larger discrepancy used for classification. We use the same threshold rule across metrics: Pass for scaled discrepancy ≤ 0.33, Partial for scaled discrepancy ≤ 1.00, and Fail for scaled discrepancy > 1.00. These criteria are simulation-construction checks, not external validation of the scoring model or its emotion labels.

Scenario Selection

Scenario selection links the empirical calibration targets to the simulation design. We group the manipulated conditions into three families (Panel D). The dynamics family varies the position feedback, velocity feedback, and innovation variance parameters, η_f, ζ_f, and σ_{qf}. The activity family varies whether one latent expressive dimension dominates across the full sequence, whether dominance switches after sampled dwell intervals, or whether all dimensions remain close to low-expression background activity. The measurement family varies the block loading matrix $_i$ and measurement-error covariance matrix $_i$ that generate the observed FER-like score panels.

The primary emotion-dynamics simulation uses six scenario families crossed with two-, three-, and four-dimensional latent source structures. Four families represent generic expression regimes: low-expression single dominance, high-expression single dominance, high-expression switching, and high-expression fast-switching volatility. Two additional families use the empirical calibration logic more directly, one with ranked persistent dynamics and one with broader switching geometry. In all cases, the number of observed channels is $p = mk$, where m is the number of latent dimensions and k is the number of observed indicators per dimension. The primary design uses $N = 50$ or 100 videos, $T = 100$ time points, $k = 4$ observed indicators per latent dimension, measurement-error standard deviations of 0.125, 0.25, and 0.50, loadings of 0.4, 0.6, and 0.8, and three replications per structural cell. Two sensitivity conditions hold the signal settings fixed while increasing the number of indicators to $k = 6$ or the sequence

length to $T = 300$.

For each simulated video, LOMM first generates latent trajectories from the scenario-specific dynamic parameters. The activity schedule then scales those trajectories: non-switching scenarios keep one active dimension for the full sequence, rotating the dominant dimension across videos, whereas switching scenarios sample dwell intervals and change the active dimension over time. The measurement layer is applied to the activity-scaled latent trajectories. Measurement error is reported as a standard deviation, with the corresponding variance entering the diagonal measurement-error covariance before small item-level variance jitter is added. The simulation design evaluates dimensional recovery under controlled combinations of dynamics, activity regimes, and measurement quality.

Known-Truth Dimensional-Recovery Simulation

The simulation begins with latent trajectories and the known number of latent expressive dimensions (Panel E). The LOMM observation layer maps each observed score channel to one latent dimension through the block loading matrix and adds item-level measurement error (Panel F), producing a simulated FER-like score panel (Panel G). The final step is the dimensional-recovery test, where the estimated number of dimensions and item memberships are compared against the known latent structure (Panel H).

We compare Dynamic Exploratory Graph Analysis [DynEGA; H. Golino et al. (2022)] with GraphicalVAR (Epskamp et al., 2018; Epskamp, 2024) and GIMME (Gates & Molenaar, 2012; Lane et al., 2019) because they represent adjacent but distinct approaches to intensive longitudinal structure. DynEGA is the focal dimensional-recovery method: it estimates groups of variables whose changes are coordinated over time. GraphicalVAR is a dynamic-network comparator that separates lagged temporal relations from contemporaneous partial associations. GIMME is an idiographic time-series framework that searches for relations that are common across individuals, shared by subgroups, or unique to individuals. In the present simulation, DynEGA tests whether a method designed for dimensional recovery can recover the known score blocks directly, GraphicalVAR tests whether a dynamic-network representation yields a similar partition after community detection, and GIMME tests whether a more flexible person-specific time-series framework is feasible under the same measurement conditions.

DynEGA combines time-delay embedding and derivative estimation from dynamical systems with exploratory graph analysis for dimensionality assessment (Boker et al., 2010; H. Golino et al., 2020; H. F. Golino & Epskamp, 2017). We apply DynEGA to the stacked video panel with video identity supplied as the grouping variable. The embedding dimension is selected by minimizing the Total Entropy Fit Index (TEFI) over candidate values (H. Golino et al., 2021), using $n_{\text{embed}} \in \{5, 10, 15, \lfloor T/4 \rfloor, \lfloor T/2 \rfloor\}$ where admissible. The estimated DynEGA

population network is then partitioned into communities, which are interpreted as recovered groups of score channels. The primary specification uses Louvain community detection (Blondel et al., 2008) and the expand rule for unidimensional solutions; Leiden (Traag et al., 2019) and Walktrap (Pons & Latapy, 2005) are retained as community-detection sensitivity specifications.

GraphicalVAR and GIMME return estimated time-series structures, which we convert into dimensional partitions using the same community-detection logic. For GraphicalVAR, we estimate a multilevel graphical VAR model on the simulated score panel and use the estimated contemporaneous partial-correlation matrix as the structural matrix. For GIMME, we fit the VAR specification to the video-level time series, extract the contemporaneous block from the person-specific Ψ matrices, and average those blocks across videos to obtain a common structural matrix. In both cases, the diagonal is ignored and the resulting weighted matrix is treated as an undirected graph. Positive edge weights define the primary graph, with absolute weights used only when no positive edges are available. Louvain, Leiden, and Walktrap are then applied to this single structural matrix, so the community-detection variants represent alternative partitions of the same fitted time-series structure rather than separate model fits.

All three methods are evaluated as dimensional-recovery estimators under known truth. GraphicalVAR is evaluated as the main network comparator across the primary design. GIMME is evaluated as a bounded feasibility and sensitivity comparator because complete factorial estimation is computationally unstable in this setting. Performance is summarized using dimensional hit rate, assignment accuracy for observed score channels, matched-score correlation, matched-score normalized root mean squared error (NRMSE), runtime, and failure or timeout accounting. Dimensional hit rate is the proportion of method rows in which the method returns the correct number of latent dimensions. Assignment accuracy asks whether observed score channels are assigned to the correct latent blocks after optimal matching of estimated communities to true blocks. For score-based metrics, observed variables are standardized within the full panel and community scores are computed from the first principal component of each estimated block, with row means used when a principal-component score cannot be estimated. Matched-score correlation and matched-score NRMSE then compare these recovered score summaries with the known latent trajectories after sign-invariant matching between estimated communities and source dimensions. Runtime is recorded for each model fit, and non-converged fits, errors, and predefined timeouts remain in the denominators.

Results

Results are organized around four questions that follow the workflow in Figure 1. We first ask whether the calibrated LOMM generator produces FER-like

score panels with empirical temporal and dimensional signatures. We then evaluate whether dimensional-recovery methods recover the known latent structure, examine how recovery changes with measurement quality, and report the computational feasibility of the compared methods.

Empirical Realism Results

Before evaluating dimensional-recovery methods, we asked whether the calibrated LOMM generator produced FER-like score panels that were sufficiently close to empirical panels for simulation construction. Figure 4 summarizes this check at two readout levels: the observed score channels and the lower-dimensional community scores extracted from the pooled DynEGA solution. The comparison evaluates selected distributional, temporal, spectral, and dimensional signatures of the empirical MAFW score panels, providing a simulation-construction check on the simulated panels.

Readout	Metric	Empirical median	LOMM median	Scaled median diff.	Scaled Wasserstein	Max discrepancy	Status
Channels	Channel IQR	0.020	0.064	0.76	1.05	1.05	Fail
Channels	Derivative IQR	0.014	0.014	0.00	0.28	0.28	Pass
Channels	Lag-1 ACF	0.521	0.609	0.28	0.22	0.28	Pass
Channels	Run-length entropy	0.785	0.742	0.33	0.32	0.33	Pass
Channels	Spectral entropy	0.755	0.693	0.37	0.43	0.43	Partial
Channels	Effective rank	5.114	6.139	0.76	0.66	0.76	Partial
Community scores	Channel IQR	0.247	0.843	1.42	1.43	1.43	Fail
Community scores	Derivative IQR	0.159	0.280	0.47	0.51	0.51	Partial
Community scores	Lag-1 ACF	0.540	0.736	0.72	0.53	0.72	Partial
Community scores	Run-length entropy	0.785	0.748	0.27	0.26	0.27	Pass
Community scores	Spectral entropy	0.751	0.641	0.66	0.64	0.66	Partial
Community scores	Effective rank	2.371	2.812	0.78	0.79	0.79	Partial

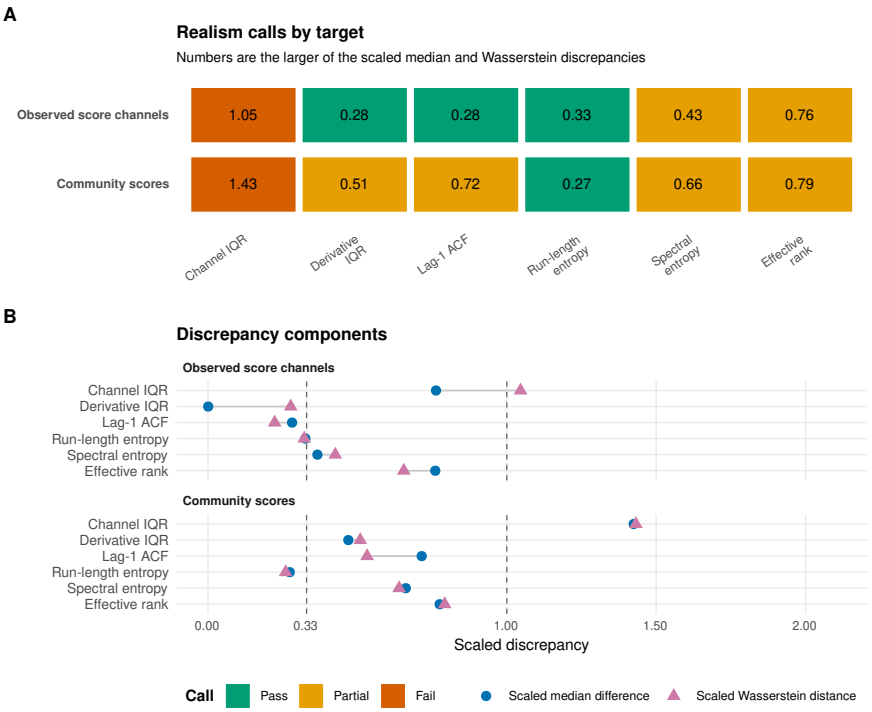


Figure 4: Empirical realism check for LOMM-generated FER-like panels. Panel A shows pass, partial, and fail classifications for the six realism targets at two readout levels: observed score channels and DynEGA community scores. Values are the larger of the scaled median difference and scaled Wasserstein distance. Panel B shows the two discrepancy components separately; dashed reference lines mark the pass threshold of 0.33 and fail threshold of 1.00.

At the observed-channel level, the generator passed the derivative-IQR, lag-1 autocorrelation, and run-length entropy checks. Spectral entropy and effective rank were partial matches, indicating that the simulated panels were close to the empirical panels in spectral complexity and multivariate dimensional spread but not within the strictest threshold. The only failed check was channel IQR, showing that the simulated observed channels remained more dispersed than the empirical score channels.

The community-score readout showed the same broad pattern with stronger amplitude mismatch. Run-length entropy passed, derivative IQR, lag-1 autocorrelation, spectral entropy, and effective rank were partial matches, and channel IQR failed. The retained Louvain community readout returned three communities with the same 6-3-2 channel-size pattern in the empirical and simulated panels, so the coarse dimensional organization matched in this readout even though the marginal amplitude of the community scores was too large. Taken together, these results support using the generator for dimensional-recovery simulation while keeping the amplitude and dispersion mismatch explicit as a limitation of the current calibration.

Simulation Recovery Results

The method-comparison results use the matched bounded subset in which DynEGA, GraphicalVAR, and GIMME can be compared directly. This subset includes Scenarios A–C with two- and three-dimensional source structures, yielding 162 matched structural cells and 486 method rows per method. Table 2 summarizes what each method did overall in this comparable subset, using dimensional hit rate, block-assignment accuracy, matched-score correlation, matched-score NRMSE, and median runtime.

Table 2: Overall method behavior in the matched bounded comparison subset. The subset includes Scenarios A–C with two- and three-dimensional source structures. Hit rate is recovery of the known number of latent dimensions; Assignment is optimal block-assignment accuracy; Score r and Score NRMSE compare matched recovered score summaries with the known latent trajectories.

Method	Scope	Structural cells	Method rows	Hit rate (%)	Assignment (%)	Score r	Score NRMSE	Median runtime (s)
DynEGA	Matched bounded comparison	162	486	98.8	99.5	0.659	0.844	0.8
GraphicalVAR	Matched bounded comparison	162	486	85.8	94.6	0.655	0.841	40.0

Table 2: Overall method behavior in the matched bounded comparison subset. The subset includes Scenarios A–C with two- and three-dimensional source structures. Hit rate is recovery of the known number of latent dimensions; Assignment is optimal block-assignment accuracy; Score r and Score NRMSE compare matched recovered score summaries with the known latent trajectories.

Method	Scope	Structural cells	Method rows	Hit rate (%)	Assignment (%)	Score r	Score NRMSE	Median runtime (s)
GIMME	Matched bounded comparison	162	486	40.7	74.3	0.629	0.844	161.0

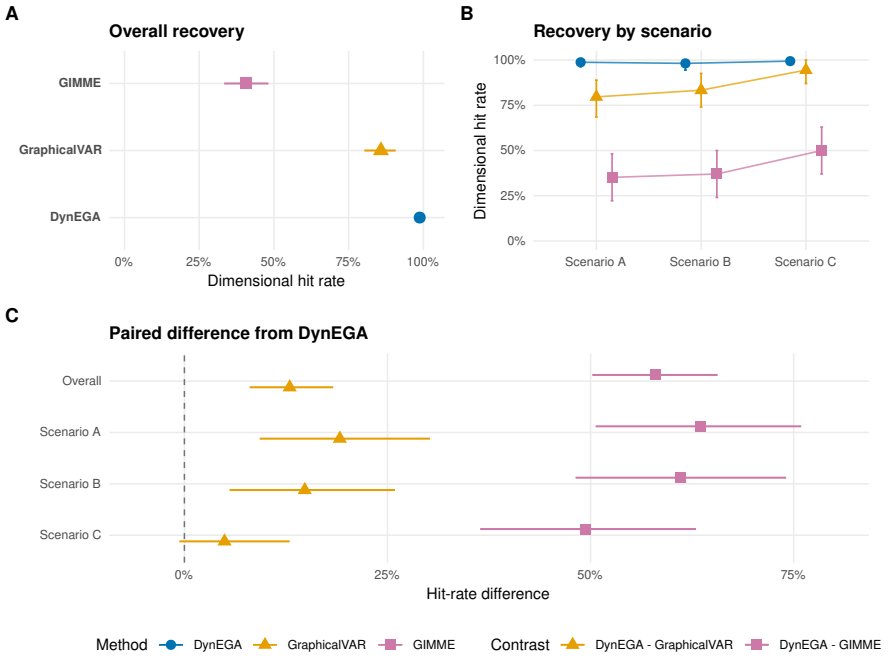


Figure 5: Dimensional hit rate in the matched bounded method-comparison subset. Panel A shows overall hit rate with 95% cluster-bootstrap intervals across matched structural cells. Panel B shows scenario-specific hit rate for Scenarios A–C. Panel C shows paired hit-rate differences between DynEGA and each comparator, using the same matched structural cells; positive values favor DynEGA.

DynEGA showed the strongest structural recovery in the matched comparison

subset, recovering the correct number of latent dimensions in 98.8% of method rows and assigning observed channels to the correct blocks with 99.5% accuracy. GraphicalVAR also recovered dimensionality in most method rows, with an 85.8% hit rate and 94.6% assignment accuracy, but required a much longer median runtime. GIMME showed weaker structural recovery in this bounded feasible subset, with a 40.7% hit rate and 74.3% assignment accuracy. The matched-score correlations and NRMSE values were similar across methods, indicating that the largest differences were in structural dimensional recovery and computational feasibility rather than in the average correlation between recovered score summaries and source trajectories.

Figure 5 shows the same pattern for dimensional hit rate. DynEGA was near ceiling across Scenarios A–C, whereas GraphicalVAR improved from Scenario A to Scenario C and GIMME remained lower across all three scenarios. In paired contrasts, DynEGA exceeded GraphicalVAR overall by 13.0 percentage points and exceeded GIMME by 58.0 percentage points. The DynEGA–GraphicalVAR difference was largest in Scenarios A and B and smallest in Scenario C, where the interval crossed zero. The main simulation result is that the method designed for dynamic dimensional recovery recovered the known number of latent dimensions more consistently and with substantially lower runtime in the matched comparison subset.

In the full DynEGA grid, the descriptive partial-η^2 screen identified scenario family as the largest source of dimensional hit-rate variation ($\eta_p^2 = .227$). Measurement-error standard deviation and loading strength had smaller effects on hit rate ($\eta_p^2 = .039$ and $\eta_p^2 = .015$, respectively), but much larger effects on matched-score correlation ($\eta_p^2 = .565$ and $\eta_p^2 = .240$). Because scenario differences are already shown in Figure 5, the next comparison focuses on the two measurement-quality factors that directly alter the observed FER-like panels: loading strength and measurement error.

Figure 6 shows how method differences changed across measurement quality. DynEGA remained near ceiling for dimensional hit rate across most loading and error combinations. GraphicalVAR was more sensitive to the measurement layer: its hit rate was weakest when loadings were low and measurement error was high, and improved when observed channels carried a stronger signal from their source dimensions. GIMME remained lower on hit rate across most strata, especially under weak-loading and high-error conditions.

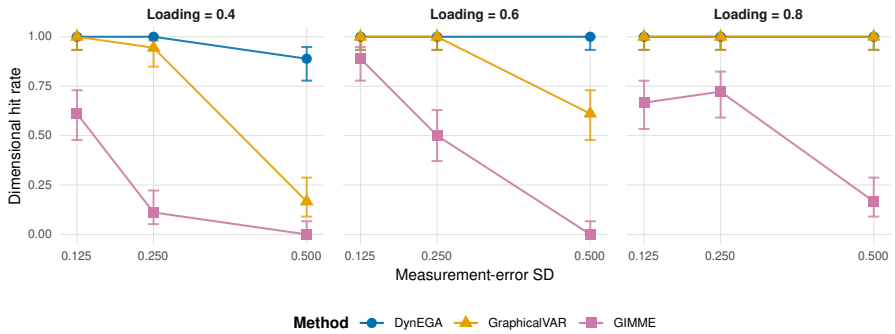


Figure 6: Dimensional hit rate stratified by measurement-error standard deviation and loading strength in the matched bounded comparison subset. Columns show loading strength; lines and symbols show methods. Error bars are Wilson 95% confidence intervals computed from all method rows in each stratum.

Table 3: Conditional matched-score correlations after correct dimensional recovery. Correlations use only rows in which the corresponding method recovered the correct number of dimensions. The conditional r range and widest CI are computed across the loading-by-measurement-error strata shown in Figure 6.

Method	Correct rows	Hit rate	Mean conditional r	Conditional r range	Correct rows per stratum	Widest CI	Missing strata
DynEGA	480/486	98.8%	0.700	0.383-0.871	48-54	0.491	0
GraphicalVAR	417/486	85.8%	0.731	0.447-0.871	9-54	0.857	0
GIMME	198/486	40.7%	0.791	0.681-0.822	6-48	0.961	2

Table 3 shows why matched-score correlations should be interpreted as a conditional diagnostic rather than a primary method-ranking criterion. Mean conditional correlations were broadly comparable across methods. These estimates were supported by very different denominators: DynEGA contributed 480 of 486 possible rows, GraphicalVAR contributed 417 of 486 but only 9 correctly recovered rows in its weakest measurement stratum, and GIMME contributed 198 of 486 with two strata missing entirely. Thus, the conditional correlation means show that successful recoveries can yield similar score summaries, while GraphicalVAR and especially GIMME often failed before this score-recovery metric could be evaluated.

Computational Feasibility

Computational feasibility was evaluated separately from recovery accuracy because the methods differed in both recovery behavior and scalability across the simulation design. Figure 7 summarizes runtime in the common base design, and the text below accounts for full-grid completion, timeouts, errors, and bounded stopping. This distinction is important for interpreting the comparator results: GraphicalVAR and GIMME are informative bounded comparisons with more limited scalability across the full LOMM grid.

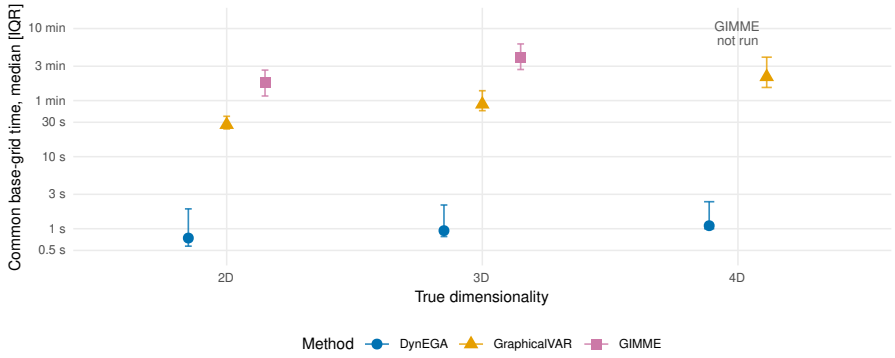


Figure 7: Runtime of the compared methods in the common base design. Points show median runtime per successful fit and intervals show the interquartile range. GIMME was not run for four-dimensional source structures in the bounded comparison.

In the common base design, DynEGA had median runtimes below 1.2 s across two-, three-, and four-dimensional source structures (0.74, 0.94, and 1.10 s). GraphicalVAR required 27.8, 53.3, and 128.1 s for the same conditions, corresponding to 37.4, 56.7, and 116.3 times the DynEGA runtime. GIMME required 107.6 and 234.2 s in the two- and three-dimensional base conditions, corresponding to 145.0 and 249.2 times the DynEGA runtime, and was not run for four-dimensional structures.

The status accounting clarifies why the primary method comparison uses a matched bounded subset. DynEGA completed all 3,402 planned method rows without errors or timeouts, covering the full base grid and the larger-sample, longer-series, and more-indicator extensions. GraphicalVAR completed 2,268 rows and produced no estimator errors, but 12 rows timed out at the 900-s limit in the four-dimensional ranked-persistence base condition. After this timeout boundary, the remaining ranked-persistence rows, the broad-geometry calibration family, and the longer-series and more-indicator sensitivity blocks were not attempted for GraphicalVAR. GIMME completed 672 rows and produced no timeouts in the staged run, but 18 rows ended in post-estimation errors. These were not numerical timeouts; the fitted models returned no usable person-level

Ψ matrices from which contemporaneous structures could be extracted. Because each failed fit is evaluated with three community-detection variants, the 18 error rows correspond to six failed structure fits. The GIMME ladder therefore stopped before the four-dimensional, larger-sample, longer-series, and more-indicator extensions. Thus, the simulation results point to two related conclusions: DynEGA had the strongest dimensional hit rate in the shared comparison subset, and it was the only method computationally light enough to cover the broader design grid used for sensitivity checks.

Discussion

This study introduced LOMM as a known-truth framework for studying dimensional recovery in FER-like video score series. The central contribution is a clean separation among three components that empirical video analyses often combine in a single observed panel: latent expressive dynamics, the measurement layer that turns those dynamics into score channels, and the recovery method used to infer lower-dimensional structure. This separation gives researchers a way to evaluate recovery methods before applying them to empirical videos where the latent structure is unknown.

The empirical realism check supports a qualified use of the generator for simulation design. The simulated panels reproduced several temporal signatures of the empirical FER-like score panels, including local persistence, typical movement scale, and directional-regime complexity. Spectral complexity and effective rank were partial matches, indicating reasonable but incomplete correspondence in frequency structure and dimensional spread. Channel IQR failed at both the observed-channel and community-score readouts, showing that the current calibration still produces larger amplitude dispersion than the empirical panels. These results position LOMM as a simulation generator with explicit realism limits: it captures selected temporal and dimensional properties of FER-like video data while preserving the amplitude mismatch as a visible constraint on interpretation.

In the known-truth simulation, the main method difference was structural. DynEGA recovered the correct number of latent dimensions in nearly all rows of the matched comparison subset and showed high block-assignment accuracy. GraphicalVAR recovered dimensionality in many conditions, especially when the measurement signal was stronger, and it became more sensitive to the observation layer as loadings weakened and measurement error increased. GIMME showed lower dimensional hit rates in the subset where it could be evaluated and was retained as a bounded feasibility comparator. The simulation therefore favors methods whose estimation target is aligned with dynamic dimensional recovery, with DynEGA showing the most consistent recovery of the known latent structure in this design.

The score-recovery results clarify how the measurement layer affects interpre-

tation. Conditional matched-score correlations were broadly comparable across methods after the correct number of dimensions had already been recovered. This makes score correlation a useful diagnostic of successful recoveries, while limiting its value as the primary basis for ranking methods. The denominator matters: GraphicalVAR and especially GIMME contributed fewer correctly recovered rows in weak measurement conditions, so similar conditional correlations rested on less reliable recovery pathways. The more informative result is that lower loadings and higher measurement error reduced dimensional hit rates for the comparator methods more than for DynEGA.

Computational feasibility is also part of the methodological result. A simulation study must establish which method recovers the known structure and which method can be run across the design needed to evaluate dimensionality, measurement quality, and scenario differences. DynEGA completed the full planned grid without errors or timeouts. GraphicalVAR was much slower and reached a repeated timeout boundary, while GIMME produced post-estimation errors in the staged run and was therefore treated as a bounded comparator. Reporting these limits keeps the method comparison tied to both statistical recovery and practical feasibility.

Several limitations follow directly from this design. FER-like scores remain model-derived observations of visible expression, so the realism check evaluates selected statistical signatures rather than the validity of emotion labels or exact empirical trajectories. The present LOMM implementation uses a block measurement structure and provides a controlled simulation rather than a full latent geometry for real affective systems. The channel-IQR mismatch shows that amplitude calibration remains incomplete, and GIMME could not be evaluated as a full-grid peer. Future work should test richer measurement structures, additional empirical scoring systems, and empirical applications where known-truth simulation results guide substantive validation of video-derived affective dynamics.

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